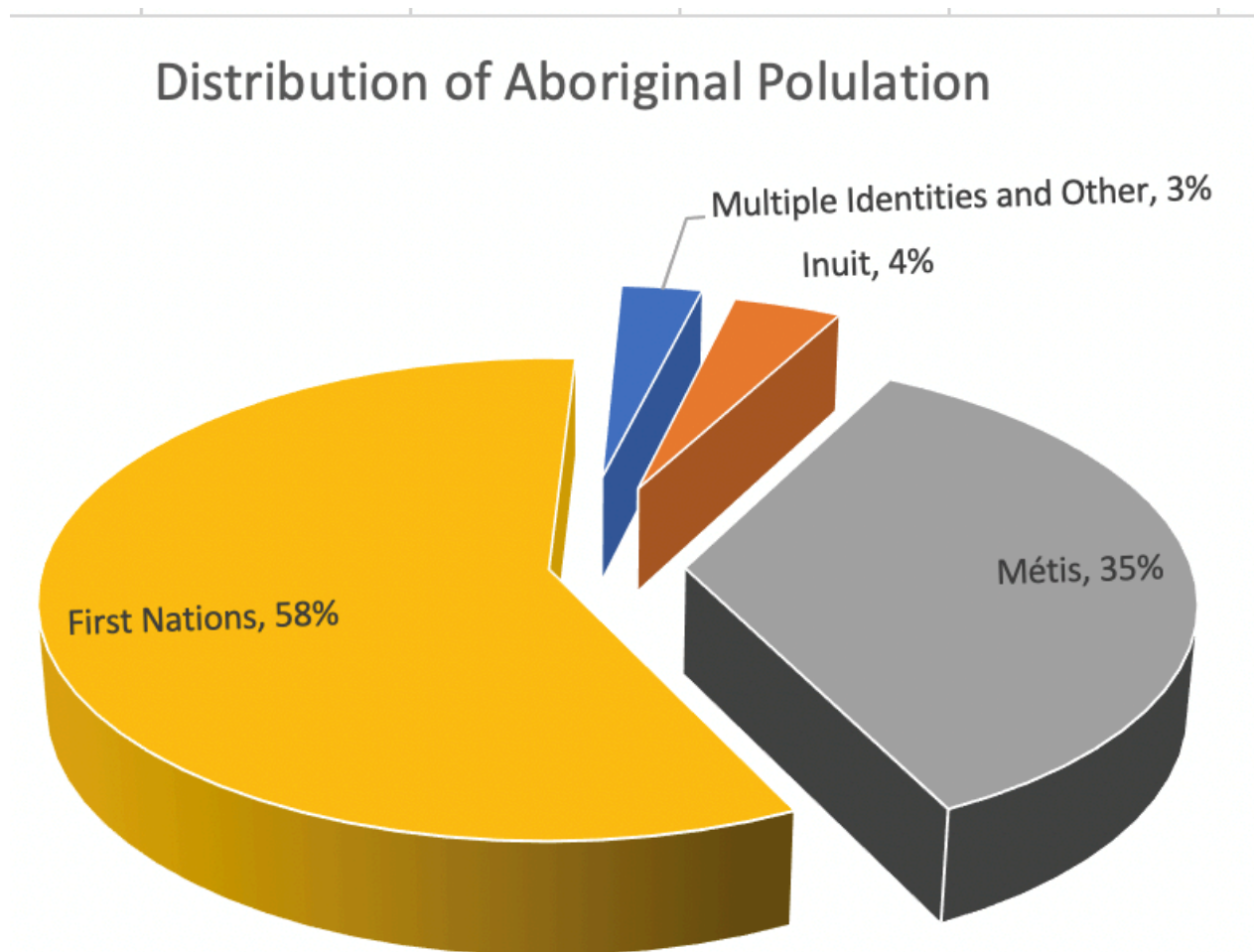


Introduction

This week we will look at the increasingly important relationship that municipalities have with Indigenous governments and peoples.

With their capacity to bring the national reconciliation effort home to the local level, municipalities are not only critical partners. They have the capacities to be leaders in reconciliation through an authentic and inclusive dialogue with indigenous peoples and governments. (Vizina & Wilson, 2019, 11)

Nearly 5% of Canada's population identified as Aboriginal in the 2016 Census. The census reported that the growth rate was higher, and that the Aboriginal population was younger, than the non-Aboriginal population – one-third of the First Nations population was 14 years or younger (Statistics Canada, 2017).



Source: Toronto Metropolitan University, adapted from [Aboriginal peoples in Canada: Key results from the 2016 Census](#)

The number of Aboriginal people living in urban areas of at least 30,000 people is growing – according to the 2016 Census, more than half the Aboriginal population lived in urban communities in 2016 (Statistics

Canada, 2017, 9). The five cities with the largest Aboriginal population include: Winnipeg, Edmonton, Vancouver, Toronto, Calgary (Statistics Canada, 2017, 9).

The population isn't evenly distributed. For example, Ontario is home to the largest number of First Nations peoples (about 24% of the total) but they represent only 1.8% of the total Ontario population (Statistics Canada, 2017, 3).

Video

[The Changing Nature of Canada's Indigenous Community](#) [5:15] provides an introduction to the changing Indigenous communities and begins to explore some of the implications for municipalities.

Activity

Take a minute to learn about your community at [Native-Land.ca](https://native-land.ca) – enter your address to see the First Nation territory, language, and any treaties covering your community.

While First Nations, Métis, and Inuit are legally recognized as Aboriginal in the *Constitution Act, 1982*, this wasn't always the case. There were past legal distinctions between the three groups and for many years Indian peoples were the only peoples formally recognized in the Constitution. A Supreme Court ruling in 1929 recognized Inuit peoples as covered by the *Constitution Act, 1982* (OECD, 2020, 44). Métis were legally recognized for the first time in the *Constitution Act, 1982* (OECD, 2020, 44). It is important to note that there are also legal distinctions set out in the *Indian Act*, between registered status Indians and non-status Indians.

Key Point

You will notice that different terms are used to describe Indigenous people. Efforts have been made to use the terms used by a specific researcher when referencing their research or terms used in legislation. For example, you will see reference to Indian (terminology used in the past by the federal government) and to Aboriginal peoples (the term used currently by the federal government). First Nations, Métis, and Inuit are used where appropriate to refer to specific peoples. Unless designated by a source, the module will use the term Indigenous peoples “analogous to the term ‘European’... to refer to the descendants of all the original nations and peoples” of Canada (OECD, 2020, 39).

Topics and Learning Objectives

Topics

- Understanding past and current relationships
- Municipal-Indigenous governance relationships
- Paths for future relationships

Learning Objectives

By the end of this module, you should be able to:

- Identify and explain the significance of key legislation that has implications for First Nations governance
- Describe the types of First Nations governance
- Assess the differences between First Nations and municipal governance
- Identify current relationship options for municipal-Indigenous relationships
- Consider the implications for municipalities of urban self-government and the duty to consult
- Reflect on opportunities for new governance relationships at the regional and multi-government level

Readings

Reading

Please Note: You can access all non-textbook readings through the One-Stop Course Readings located in the Table of Contents in your D2L Brightspace course.

Required

1. Heritz, J. (2018, December). From self-determination to service delivery: Assessing Indigenous inclusion in municipal governance in Canada. *Canadian Public Administration*, 61(4).
2. Palmater, P. (2018). Restoring the place of Indigenous Peoples in the GTHA. Institute on Municipal Finance & Governance.

Supplementary

Vizina, Y. & Wilson, P. (2019, June). Reconciliation with Indigenous peoples: A holistic approach. Toolkit for Inclusive Municipalities in Canada. Canadian Commission for UNESCO.

Colonial Settlements and Land

This module is about the relationship that municipalities have with Indigenous peoples and communities. It is hard to know where to “start” this module because there is much history and practice that informs how we got to the place that we are at today. We will be guided by our focus on relationships between municipalities/local government and Indigenous peoples. The module content will highlight past actions and current practices that are relevant to that relationship, but it does not provide a fulsome discussion of the relationship that non-Indigenous people and their institutions have with Indigenous peoples. You are strongly encouraged to continue to learn about these historical relationships to round out the condensed history that is included in this module.

Historical Events

Did You Know?

Review this [timeline of key historical events and/or interactions between Indigenous and non-Indigenous peoples in Canada](#).

Source extracted from [Reconciliation with Indigenous Peoples: A Holistic Approach](#)

Other than the remains of a Viking presence in L'Anse aux Meadows in Newfoundland as early as the 8th century, John Cabot is credited as the first European to set foot on the land we now call Canada in 1497, in an area that had previously been settled by Indigenous peoples. Cabot was followed by other Europeans, primarily from England and France, and over time they established settlements or colonies.

These settlements grew over time and tensions arose between the two groups of settlers – the English and French. Following a loss in the Seven Years War, France gave up their claim and control of land in Canada to Britain. The King of England issued a Royal Proclamation in 1783 that is “sometimes referred to as the Indigenous ‘Magna Carta’ of Canada” (AMO, 2019, 6), which proclaimed the land as British. Importantly, the Proclamation also recognized the rights of Indigenous peoples and outlined a treaty process through which Indigenous land could be legally ceded to the Crown.

The best places for settlements involved lands that were near waterways for transportation, were good for growing crops, and could be protected against military action. These were lands already occupied by Indigenous peoples, but over time and as settlements grew, the colonists began to dislocate the Indigenous peoples. For example, the Métis were moved away by treaty from the Red River area (Winnipeg).

Despite the vision set out by the Royal Proclamation, the rapid influx of settlers, commercial development of natural resources, the arrival of European forms of governance and political expediency soon eroded the land base and livelihood of Indigenous peoples (AMO, 2019, 6).

As we know today, there are many examples that indicate that treaties were not fairly negotiated or properly executed by the colonists.

Did You Know?

The Toronto Purchase, 1787 (amended in 1805), involved the transfer of land of the Mississaugas of the New Credit First Nation to the Crown. Many questions were raised over the subsequent years about the treaty, which was very unclear on the land involved and whether the chiefs had actually agreed to the treaty. More than two hundred years later, a land claim was made and in 2010 a settlement was reached between the Crown and the Mississaugas of the New Credit.

The Foundations for the Relationship

The *Constitution Act, 1867* is critical to understanding the context for today's relationships between municipalities and Indigenous peoples. It gave the federal government jurisdiction over Indians (the term used in the Constitution) and over lands reserved for Indians (Graham & Peters, 2002, 5) and recognized the treaty system and related commitments to Indians. As we know, the Constitution also gave provinces the jurisdiction to establish local governments, which they would control.

Did You Know?

The Constitution Act was followed by the *Indian Act, 1876*, which established the rules and process for determining Indian status and the division of responsibility for Indians between the federal and provincial/territorial governments. Section 81 of the *Indian Act* assigns responsibilities, similar to those assigned by provinces to municipalities, to elected Band Councils; while Section 82(2) gives the federal minister the authority to overrule a bylaw or decision taken by a Band Council, similar to the override that provinces have of municipal decisions.

Band councils were imposed on Indigenous peoples by the Government of Canada to “eradicate the hereditary system [of governance] and create something more recognizable for the western government” (McCarty, 2019). Band councils included an elected chief and elected council members and had delegated authority for the designed reserve.

The hereditary system, based on representation from clans and involvement of elders, represents more traditional leadership. Hereditary chiefs are seen as “traditional knowledge keepers, and in some contexts are recognized as having greater authority and rights relative to things like traditional territory or cultural knowledge and tradition” (McCarty, 2019). Recent disputes about the Coastal GasLink pipeline

have highlighted the differences between the two forms of governance – one imposed and elected and the other traditional and hereditary.

The *Indian Act* was amended in 1951 to transfer responsibility for Métis, non-status Indians, and off-reserve Indigenous peoples to the provinces, while the federal government retained responsibility for Indigenous peoples living on reserve.

Video

Watch this episode of *The Agenda with Steve Paikin*, [The Indian Act Explained - Getting to Know the Act](#) [25:35].

Paikin interviews Bob Joseph about the book *21 Things You May Not Know About The Indian Act: Helping Canadians Make Reconciliation with Indigenous Peoples a Reality*. The video provides an overview of this legislation and provides insight on how it continues to shape relationships today.

Shifting Responsibility

As you remember from earlier modules, urbanization was a strong force beginning in the 1950s, and Indigenous peoples were part of this trend. In 1959, 17% of registered Indians lived off reserve; by 1996 this had increased to 42% (Ontario, 2009, 602). Urbanization served to shift responsibility from the federal government to the provinces (as a result of the 1951 amendment to the *Indian Act*) and the result was a gap in policy – while the *Indian Act* didn't apply, there was no, or very limited, provincial legislation or policy framework to take its place in Ontario or other provinces.

The *Constitution Act* was patriated in 1982 and included formal recognition of Aboriginal and treaty rights. There are two sections of particular relevance to the discussion of the relationship with municipalities:

- Part 1 – Section 25 – this section guarantees certain rights and freedoms in the Constitution, regardless of Aboriginal, treaty, or other rights and any rights set out in land claims or other agreements
- Part 2 – Section 35 – this section recognizes Indian, Inuit, and Métis people as Aboriginal Peoples of Canada. It recognizes existing Aboriginal and treaty rights, including land claim agreements, and serves to entrench Aboriginal and treaty rights in the Constitution.

The changes in the *Constitution Act, 1982* provided an opportunity for policy and other changes through courts and policy processes, but it didn't change the status and form of Indigenous governments in Canada (Graham & Peters, 2002, 194).

The *Indian Act* was again amended in 1985. This amendment removed previous restrictions on status so that women who married non-Indigenous persons could apply to be reinstated as status Indians by

their band council.

Alternatives to the Indian Act

Two pieces of legislation offered alternatives to the *Indian Act* for First Nations governance.

First Nations Land Management Act, 1999

This legislation delegated some land management responsibilities from the *Indian Act* to band councils and removed a requirement for approval of land-related decisions by the minister responsible for First Nations. Band councils that met the requirements, including the development of a land code, would assume responsibility for the creation, administration, and enforcement of laws about the management of reserve lands. By October 2019, 79 First Nations had developed the required land code, between 10 and 15 were in the process of ratifying a code, and 55 were in the process of developing a code (OECD, 2020, 56). The shift to land management is one-way – First Nations that move to the *Land Management Act* cannot choose to return to land management under the *Indian Act*.

First Nations Fiscal Management Act, 2006

This legislation gave First Nations jurisdiction over a number of core government functions as well as some new revenue tools. As of October 2019, 282 First Nations had opted into the framework and 125 of those had started to collect property tax (OECD, 2020, 56).

While these options gave First Nations more responsibility and autonomy, they were both based on the structure of band council governance imposed through the *Indian Act*.

Royal Commission on Aboriginal Peoples

In 1991, Mohawk First Nations people protested the expansion of a golf course and housing development on disputed lands in Kanesatake that included a Mohawk burial ground. The 78-day dispute near the town of Oka was complex and involved many players in this and other communities.

Video

Watch [The Oka Crisis in 5 Minutes](#) [4:53] for a brief overview of the Oka crisis.

As you can tell from the video, the situation was volatile and tense. When it ended, the federal government purchased the land identified for the golf course expansion but has not transferred the land to the Mohawks of Kanesatake as reserve lands (Marshall, 2013 updated by McIntosh & Doerr, 2020).

Following the Oka crisis and related protests and resistance across the country, the federal government appointed a Royal Commission on Aboriginal Peoples in August 1991 to look at the relationship between First Nations, Inuit, Métis peoples and the Government of Canada and Canadian society.

The Royal Commission on Aboriginal Peoples engaged in extensive research and consultations related to governance, land and economy, social and cultural issues, and the North, and produced five reports. The final report, submitted in 1996, included discussions of governance.

The commission supported self-governance and estimated that there were 60 to 80 Aboriginal Nations that could be self-governing. The Royal Commission also recommended an Aboriginal parliament to advise parliament on Aboriginal issues and three governance models for Aboriginal peoples living in urban areas.

Canada responded with *Gathering Strength: Canada's Aboriginal Action Plan* (1997) that included a commitment to improve services to urban Aboriginal peoples. In 1998, Canada established the Urban Aboriginal Strategy to provide support and funding for the development of community organizations to address the needs of urban Aboriginal peoples in select urban municipalities, and better coordinate and integrate policies at the federal level and with federal partners. The strategy was “instrumental in bringing policy actors together” (Heritz, 2018, 607).

Growing Urban Indigenous Populations

At the same time that these formal changes were happening in the relationship between First Nations and the Government of Canada and the provinces, changes were continuing to happen within Indigenous communities. The migration to urban centres put increasing attention on governance and service issues for Aboriginal peoples living in urban areas, while pressure continued for on-reserve First Nation governance and services.

Developments at the federal level between government and Indigenous peoples were complemented by efforts at the municipal level. The Centre for Municipal Aboriginal Relations (the Centre) was established in 1996 to promote municipal-Indigenous relations through research about agreements and good relationship practices. In 2001, the Centre formed a committee to focus on collaborative relationships between municipalities and First Nations that were adjacent or close to urban areas.

The Federation of Canadian Municipalities partnered with the Department of Aboriginal Affairs and Northern Development Canada to establish the First Nations-Municipal Community Infrastructure Partnership (CIPP) program. The program made resources and funding available for hard and soft infrastructure through municipal-First Nations partnerships.

Truth and Reconciliation Commission

The Truth and Reconciliation Commission was established to determine the truth about residential schools and “lay the foundation for the important question of reconciliation” (TRC, 2015a, vi). Reconciliation was defined as “establishing and maintaining a mutually respectful relationship between Aboriginal and non-Aboriginal peoples in this country” (TRC, 2015b, 3).

The relationship between Indigenous and settler peoples in Canada was one of nations encountering nations, where one gradually oppressed and marginalized the other. Indigenous peoples never agreed to the denial of their sovereignty, cultures or identities. Thus, in the Canadian context, reconciliation must refer to “transformative” as opposed to “restorative” reconciliation (Stanton, 2011 as quoted in Vizina & Wilson, 2019, 10).

In 2015, the Truth and Reconciliation Commission issued 94 Calls to Action, five of which directly refer to municipalities (bolded below) and seven that refer to government or all levels of government:

3 – fully implement Jordan’s Principle

17 – support residential school survivors and families to reclaim their original names

23 – increase number of Aboriginal health care professionals, support retention of Aboriginal health professionals in Aboriginal communities, and provide cultural competency training for all health care professionals

40 – establish Indigenous-specific victim programs and services

43 – adopt and implement the United Nations Declaration on the Rights of Indigenous Peoples as the framework for reconciliation

47 – reject concepts used to justify European sovereignty over Indigenous peoples and land

57 – educate municipal public servants and develop skills in intercultural competency, conflict resolution, human rights and anti-racism efforts

64 – require denominational schools to provide comparative religious studies including on Indigenous spiritual beliefs and practices

75 – protect residential school cemeteries

77 – provide records of residential schools to the National Centre for Truth and Reconciliation

87 – provide public education on the history of Indigenous athletes in Canada

88 – take action to support the development of Indigenous athletes

Sources: #3, 17 and 23 summarized from the TRC Report; #43, 47, 57, 64, 75, 77, 87, 88 from Vizina & Wilson, 2019, 11.

Did You Know?

These Calls to Action have implications for the municipalities and their ongoing relationship with Indigenous peoples. The City of Winnipeg established [an Indigenous Relations Division](#) in 2013

to coordinate Indigenous-specific programs and initiatives. This division has been given responsibility for the implementation of the TRC Calls to Action.

The city has developed Winnipeg's Indigenous Accord and reports annually on their progress. The video [Welcoming Winnipeg](#) [1:34] provides an introduction to the accord. Other initiatives include the Mayor's Indigenous Advisory Circle; an Aboriginal Youth Strategy; an extensive research guide available through Winnipeg Public Library; and Welcoming Winnipeg, an advisory committee of community members.

The Winnipeg initiative has also focused on educating and engaging youth. You are encouraged, but not required, to watch the video [Educating Our Youth – Truth and Reconciliation](#) [4:09]. Please note that this optional video is not closed captioned.

Indigenous Self-Government

Canada recognized the inherent right to Indigenous self-government in Section 35 of the *Constitution Act, 1982* and established the Inherent Right Policy in 1995 to guide the self-government negotiations with Indigenous peoples (Canada, 2019).

Self-government agreements are negotiated between Canada and the Indigenous community within the framework of the Constitution and consistent with federal laws. These agreements give Indigenous communities “a variety of political and legal powers that are somewhat akin to what provinces and municipalities have” (Alcantara & Nelles, 2014, 183). In 2019, there were 25 agreements that involved 42 Indigenous communities, two education self-governance agreements involving 30 Indigenous communities, and negotiations were underway for another 50 agreements (Canada, 2019). Self-government takes different forms – it may be comprehensive or limited to specific services like education.

The [Modern Treaties and Self-Government Agreements](#) map shows the territory covered by the different agreements.

Video

The Tsawwassen First Nation negotiated the first [urban treaty](#) in British Columbia in 2009. At the same time, the First Nation became a member of the Metro Vancouver Board – a partnership of 21 municipalities, the Tsawwassen First Nation, and one electoral area (Metro Vancouver, 2019).

Listen to Kim Baird, the former chief, reflect on the process and the experience in [Kim Baird: Her Successful Struggle for Self-Governance](#) [4:28].

Kwanlin Dün First Nation Self-Government Agreement

The earliest self-government agreements were signed in the 1990s in the Yukon. None of the 14 First Nations in the Yukon had signed treaties in the past with the Crown and none of them had reserve lands. These First Nations began negotiating with the federal government in 1973 and the final agreement was approved and ratified in 1994 (Alcantara & Nelles, 2009, 715). This agreement served as the framework agreement that was to be used to negotiate individual agreements that could be tailored with specific provisions to each of the 14 First Nations.

The Kwanlin Dün First Nation began to negotiate their agreement with the federal government in 1995, but progress stalled until 1999 when a new chief was elected and the negotiations resumed.

Three of the outstanding issues in the negotiations had implications for the City of Whitehorse:

the inclusion of waterfront lands in [the City of] Whitehorse as part of the settlement lands [owned by the municipality], clarification of the First Nation's self-government powers in the city (that is, land use planning), property taxation exemptions (because all land transferred under a treaty would immediately become taxable and would probably bankrupt Kwanlin Dün)... (Alcantara & Nelles, 2009, 716).

Despite the impact on the city of these issues – Whitehorse owned the land in question, there was potential for incompatible development and property standards within the urban area, and they were at risk of losing property tax dollars – the City of Whitehorse was not allowed to formally participate in the negotiations, which was conducted between the federal and territorial governments.

Earlier Whitehorse councils had not been supportive of a land claims agreement, however, with the election of a new mayor and council in 2000, things began to change. In the end, the City of Whitehorse sold the prime waterfront land to the territory, so it could be included in the 2002 self-government agreement. There were various conditions that require the Kwanlin Dün to use city bylaws for the lands and a service agreement was negotiated for services that the city would provide to the waterfront land.

As Alcantara and Nelles observe in the case study, the ownership of the land was a deal breaker that gave the municipality a “powerful veto over negotiations” (2009, 719). But the development of the waterfront lands was a priority for the city, and the development by the Kwanlin Dün and the construction of a Kwanlin Dün cultural centre “were not construed as bad outcomes from the city's point of view” (Alcantara & Nelles, 2009, 721). The lands would be subject to municipal bylaws and standards, servicing would be provided at cost, and there were benefits from reducing the uncertainty about the implications of the waterfront land claim on the city. The result supported the economic and community goals of Whitehorse.

Video

Please watch the video [Setting Our Course: Yukon First Nations Self-Government](#) [15:01] for an overview of self-government in the Yukon. This video is not closed captioned; [click here for a](#)

Whitehorse has continued to develop respectful and strong relationships with two First Nations. In June 2018, the Kwanlin Dün First Nation, Ta'an Kwäch'än Council, and the city developed and ratified a [Declaration of Commitment](#) that describes collaboration, ongoing communications and respect. Regular meetings are held between the municipal council and each First Nation, and the municipality is taking steps to ensure that municipal staff are aware and informed – the municipality requires municipal staff to complete a Yukon First Nations 101 course offered by the local college (Vizina & Wilson, 2019, 28).

As you can see from this case study, the negotiation process takes a long time and is complicated by changing leadership, and the differing goals, structures, and approval processes of the First Nations and government negotiators. Municipalities don't have a seat at the negotiating table and may have limited information on the negotiations. The lengthy timelines add to the uncertainty for municipalities – for example, Whitehorse was not able to develop the waterfront land because they knew that the land was a key issue in the negotiations with the Kwanlin Dün. Municipalities may be concerned about the loss of property tax revenue for land included in agreements with First Nations, implications for servicing of the land, and the ability to move through the First Nations land to access other parts of the municipality.

Bringing it Together

What can we learn from this brief historical overview of the relationship between municipalities and Indigenous peoples?

Pause and Reflect

Take a few minutes to reflect on the material presented. You may note some similarities between our study of local government and this module's overview of Indigenous governance. What are they? Are there also important differences? What do these similarities and differences mean for our studies of local government and Indigenous relationships?

Click-n-reveal: **Similarities**

There are some similarities in governance structure and responsibilities. Both municipalities and First Nations administer a specific, defined jurisdiction; both provide services, develop policies within their jurisdiction, and pass bylaws. It has been estimated that about 80% of the day-to-day concerns of municipal councils would be the same as those of First Nations councils (Tennant as referenced by McAllister, 2004, 24). Both band councils and municipalities are defined in legislation and both have limited autonomy, with the potential for a decision to be overridden by the province or federal minister. Both have limited powers of taxation and revenue tools; both are governed by an elected council and leader.

While First Nations and municipalities may be comparable, First Nations reject the characterization of their government as municipal (Alcantara & Nelles, 2009, 710).

There are some key differences between municipalities and First Nations. First Nations have a constitutional relationship with the federal government and provinces, while provinces establish municipalities, which have no constitutional status. First Nations that have negotiated self-governance have a very different relationship with the federal and provincial government based on the agreement.

If a First Nation has negotiated self-governance, it is able to raise funds through property and sales tax (Poholka, 2016, 29). Municipalities have the ability to apply special taxes – hotel, billboards, etc. – but they can't establish a sales tax.

While some governance features are similar, First Nations have different governance traditions (Bish & Cassidy as referenced in McAllister, 2004, 24), which include both hereditary and elected band council governance. First Nations governance emphasizes collective rights that are held by the community rather than individual rights (Ministry of Municipal Affairs and Housing, 2009). There is more community engagement and participation, chiefs have less power than mayors, and decision-making is consensus focused rather than the majority-rule of municipal councils (Alcantara & Nelles, 2009). In addition, elders play a key role in governance.

Different Governance Processes and Traditions

The Iroquois Confederacy uses Kaianerekowa, the Great Law of Peace, to guide their decision-making process. Wampum #5 emphasizes participation in the decision-making process, deliberation, diverse perspectives and respect for those perspectives, and consensus on the decision.

The Kahmawa:ke First Nations, located south of Montreal, creates three groups of community members. Two of the groups discuss the issue and possibly amend the options under consideration. A third group watches the back and forth between the two groups and gives feedback at the end of the discussion. All three groups must agree on the decision, otherwise the proposal doesn't move forward in the process for a council decision.

In *Peace, Power, Righteousness: An Indigenous Manifesto*, Gerald Taiaiake Alfred reflects

Our traditions demand a higher standard of conduct – in fact, a completely different conception of the leader's role – than do the conventional corporate models that dominate business and policies in mainstream society. Simply put, for us it is not enough to know how to

gain, hold and use power. Like my forebears, I believe that leadership consists in invoking the power of reason and that the human capacity to achieve harmony is best developed through pacification and persuasion. (as quoted by Meslin, 2019, 203).

Interested in learning more? Here are two resources:

- [The establishment of the Kaianerekowa \(great law\)](#)
- [Kayanerehkowa, the great law of peace](#)

It is also important to recognize that there are different local government relationships for Indigenous peoples living on reserve and those living off-reserve. People living off-reserve do not have a unique system of governance or representation – they are part of the municipality.

First Nations Governance

The earlier discussion showed that Indigenous governance is both complicated and evolving; it is fair to say that the relationship that municipalities have with First Nations governments is also complicated and evolving. Before we consider the types of relationships and look at some examples, let's review the forms of First Nations governments.

The Government of Canada has recognized 619 First Nations (OECD, 2019, Key Debates). These First Nations can have different governance structures under different pieces of legislation or agreement.

- **Indian Act governance** – This is the form of government imposed under the *Indian Act*, which requires elections of a band council and chief every two years. As noted earlier, two recent pieces of legislation have provided opportunities for First Nations to assume more responsibility and autonomy. The *First Nations Land Management Act* delegated land management responsibilities from the *Indian Act* to band councils, and the *First Nations Fiscal Management Act* 2006 gave First Nations jurisdiction over core government functions.
- **Self-governance** – The governance of Indigenous communities is changing as First Nations negotiate treaties and self-governance agreements with the federal government.

Self-governance can take different forms – it can be developed based on the unique characteristics of the Indigenous community or it can take a more public form.

- Traditional Indigenous governance combines hereditary traditional governance, including elders and/or representatives from clans, with some elected positions. The structure of committees and the decision-making process will vary among First Nations.
- Public governance is when the governance process, including elections, is open to all

residents of the community/territory.

Working Together – Municipal–First Nations

Alcantara and Nelles (2016) collected and classified 332 formal municipal–First Nations agreements from 1950 to 2014. These agreements varied – some were short-term and transactional, while others were longer-term and relationship focused. Alcantara and Nelles identified four types of agreements (Nelles & Alcantara, 2011; Alcantara & Nelles, 2016):

1. **Relationship-building agreements** emphasize respect, mutual recognition, transparency, and communication. They generally include a commitment to collaborate or cooperate.
2. **Decolonization agreements** recognize that a municipality is using land that was historically occupied by the First Nation and acknowledge the rights and interests of the First Nation to their traditional land. They generally include an intention to develop a longer-term relationship and principles to guide the development of the relationship.
3. **Capacity-building agreements** focus on municipal support for the development of First Nations governance or institutional capacity. They are one-way relationships and are quite rare.
4. **Jurisdictional negotiation agreements** can take two forms – they can relate to service provision for a fee by one party for the other, or to the more collaborative joint management of a resource, service, or structure. They include shared service agreements, contracted services, legal contracts, or land leases.

The earliest formal agreements between municipalities and First Nations, beginning in the 1950s, related to joint service provision. The number of formal agreements increased significantly since the 1990s, and more than two-thirds of the agreements were recorded between 2000 and 2014 (Alcantara & Nelles, 2016, 26). In particular, the number of relationship-building and jurisdictional negotiation agreements, both the service-related agreements and joint management agreements, increased since the 1990s. This signals a “shift in relations between First Nations and proximate local governments towards a more cooperative, collaborative, and perhaps decolonized inter-governmental relationship based on principles of mutual respect and interest” (Nelles & Alcantara, 2011, 326).

In addition to the variation over time, there is variation between provinces. The number and type of agreements vary significantly by province, with British Columbia and Ontario reporting the most formal agreements in the 64-year period (Alcantara & Nelles, 2016, 26).

Two factors have an influence on the decision to engage in a formal municipal–First Nations agreement: capacity and having the tools and resources to participate in a relationship, and willingness to use the capacity in developing a formal relationship (Alcantara & Nelles, 2016, 36).

It is important to note that municipal-Indigenous relationships are also developed through municipal associations. The Federation of Canadian Municipalities has created a number of resources, guides, as well as joint funding programs and other initiatives to support the development and maintenance of strong relationships. Similar initiatives are underway at the provincial level. The Union of British Columbia Municipalities held a First Nations Summit in collaboration with their Aboriginal counterparts

that resulted in a protocol to share information and build relationships and to jointly administer a Community to Community Forum Program. You are encouraged to look at the FCM and your provincial municipal association to explore the range of initiatives.

Municipal-First Nations Relationships

The previous discussion looked at the type of formal agreements between municipalities and First Nations. This section shifts the focus to the nature of the overall relationship, recognizing that there may be multiple and different types of agreements that contribute to the overall relationship between the two parties.

Video

The Federation of Canadian Municipalities (FCM) has been a strong proponent of municipal–First Nations relationships. The video [First Nations-Municipal Collaboration](#) [3:18] describes some of those partnerships.

Alcantara and Nelles proposed that relationships could be classified, based on the **level of engagement of the parties** and the **level of intensity of the relationship** (Nelles & Alcantara, 2011; Alcantara and Nelles, 2016). Their relationship matrix identified four relationship types, which are described below. Click on the example for a brief description of a municipal–First Nations relationship in that relationship type.

High Engagement Level

High Intensity

Strong synergy

An institutionalized partnership with ongoing formal and informal contacts, such as the joint management of a facility or resource.

Click-n-reveal: Village of Teslin and Teslin Tlingit Council

The Village of Teslin (the Village) and Teslin Tlingit Council (the Council) are located in the Yukon.

Teslin Tlingit was one of the first First Nations to negotiate self-government agreements. It includes representatives from the five clans on the Tesling Tlingit Council, and follows an

Aboriginal self-governance model (Alcantara & Nelles, 2016, 71).

The Council and the Village signed five agreements between 2005 and 2015 based on their history of collaboration and a positive and friendly relationship between the two communities:

- An accord that recognized the importance of mutually beneficial relationships. It included maintenance of monthly meetings and an agreement to cooperate in the future. The agreement encouraged both partners to consider forming a regional administration and planning structure and to cooperate on quality services at cost effective prices. (2005)
- Construction of new sewer line through the Council lands, joint involvement in design and management of construction, with future right for the Council to connect to the pipe. (2005)
- The Council built a skateboard park in the Village, near an existing arena, with a financial contribution from the Village, and a commitment to shared maintenance and management of the facility. (2005)
- Development of an integrated community sustainability plan for the whole community (the Village and the Council) including shared vision, values, and goals. (2007)
- Recreation contribution agreement for the joint management of recreation programs for both communities. (2011)

Low Intensity

In the loop

The relationship involves sharing information and connections between the partners; it may or may not lead to a more formal relationship.

Click-n-reveal: Village of Haines Junction and Champagne and Aishihik First Nations

The Village of Haines Junction (the Village), the Champagne First Nation, and the Aishihik First Nation are located in the Yukon Territory. They have entered into four service agreements and three relationship-building agreements:

- Animal control service agreement signed in 1995
- Water and sewer services (early 1990s)
- Fire protection agreement (early 1990s)
- Solid waste removal and disposal (early 1990s)
- Agreement to meet quarterly (mid 2000s)
- Agreement to meet to coordinate economic development activities (late 2000s)

- Agreement to meet annually to discuss shared issues (2014)

While these three communities developed strong and engaged relationships, they haven't led to more intense joint management or joint governance process relationships.

Low Engagement Level

High Intensity

Agreement-centred

The relationship is defined through the agreement – there is no relationship other than that defined in the agreement.

Click-n-reveal: **Regional Municipality of Les Basques and Malécite de Viger First Nation**

The Regional Municipality of Les Basques and the Malécite de Viger First Nation are located in eastern Quebec.

The municipality and First Nation entered an agreement to jointly establish and manage the Inter-Nations Regional Park through a new nonprofit organization. The agreement was signed in 2014 to manage and maintain the 256 square kilometer park for public use.

There had been little interaction between the municipality and the First Nation prior to the agreement. Despite this, they both had a strong interest in collaborating to create the park and the result was described as both intense and unique (Alcantara & Nelles, 2016, 133).

Low Intensity

Business as usual

These can be described as business transactions rather than ongoing relationships. They could include agreements related to provision of services for a fee.

Click-n-reveal: **Sault Ste. Marie, Garden River, and Batchewana**

Sault Ste. Marie and the Garden River and Batchewana First Nations are in northern Ontario.

The city has had three formal agreements with Garden River First Nation:

- Fire protection agreement that was signed in 1991

- 911 service agreement signed in 1996
- 10-year lease of land from Garden River to Sault Ste. Marie so that the city can build an ambulance station. The ambulance station is a city facility staffed with First Nations band members.

Sault Ste. Marie has nine agreements with Batchewana First Nation:

- Four agreements involved the provision of fire protection (agreements signed in 1991, 1999, 2004, and 2008)
- Sewage treatment (2007)
- Provision of water services (1990)
- 911 service calls (1996)
- Shared winter maintenance of two streets adjacent to both communities (1997)
- Road extension related to future development in both communities (1996)

Most of these agreements involve the provision of services by one partner to the other for a fee.

Source: Alcantara & Nelles, 2016, 49 as well as Chapters 3, 4, 5, and 6

Agreements, collaboration, and partnerships between First Nations and municipalities are an increasingly important form of intergovernmental relationship.

The emergence of these partnerships reflects a growing recognition among Aboriginal and non-Aboriginal actors across Canada that cooperation, coordination and communication at the local level are necessary for dealing with a host of practical problems that affect both communities, jointly and separately (Nelles & Alcantara, 2011, 330).

Urban Reserves

Municipalities also engage with First Nations with respect to urban reserves. These are pieces of land within or adjacent to municipalities that are owned by First Nations and classified with reserve status by the federal government. The land may have been part of a land claim agreement settlement with the Government of Canada, or may have been purchased with funds transferred as a result of a land claim agreement, or earned by a First Nation. The reserves can be additions to existing First Nations reserves or new reserves for a First Nation that didn't previously have designated territory.

In 2013, it was estimated that there were about 120 urban reserves in Canada, mostly in Manitoba and Saskatchewan (Poholka, 2016, 6). Urban reserves are not easy to establish – there is a lengthy, multi-year process for the land to be declared as a reserve by the Government of Canada that involves consultation with the municipality, the community, and province.

Urban reserves provide First Nations with opportunities to generate revenues and may provide a place where they can offer services to band members living in the municipality. They provide municipalities with the opportunity to develop stronger and more meaningful relationships with First Nations and to benefit from the economic development activities on the urban reserve. However, they can also lead to tensions, and municipalities may be concerned about the loss of municipal revenues, unfair competition from businesses located on the urban reserve, as well as potential planning and bylaw issues. There is uneven understanding of urban reserves that may contribute to those perceptions – research found that municipalities had a limited understanding of some of the policies and processes related to urban reserves (Poholka, 2016, 35).

Did You Know?

In an effort to promote better understanding of urban reserves and the value of strong relationships with First Nations, the [City of Saskatoon website](#) includes information for residents and businesses about urban reserves and treaty land entitlement. There are [profiles of each First Nation](#), [a map of land holdings or reserves](#) in Saskatoon, [answers to frequently asked questions](#), as well as links to details about Indigenous initiatives.

Provinces have prepared guidelines about urban reserves. Manitoba advises that the details about an urban reserve must be negotiated between the First Nation and municipality before the federal government gives approval of the urban reserve. The Municipal Development and Services Agreement (about the reserve) will include tax issues, harmonization of bylaws, issues of access, process for communication and planning, and a dispute resolution processes. Toolkits and templates are available through the Federation of Canadian Municipalities (FCM).

Did You Know?

Muskeg Lake Cree Nation

The Muskeg Lake Cree Nation was the first urban reserve in Saskatoon, established in 1988 (see the link above for an introduction to the Muskeg Lake Cree Nation). The process to designate the land as an urban reserve took four years as described in the video [Muskeg Lake Cree Nation Urban Reserve: A Journey Together](#) (6:29). Since then, there have been additions to the reserve lands and the urban reserve now includes 48 acres in Saskatoon.

The city provides some municipal services for a fee, and the agreement includes provisions related to property tax losses and land use and establishes relationship protocols. Early in the process, the band council and Saskatoon city council held annual joint meetings, and communication is ongoing. The reserve provides employment for Indigenous and non-Indigenous people and generates property tax revenues for the Muskeg Lake Cree Nation. There were no issues with the land use – the First Nation wanted the development to look and feel like other developments in the urban area.

Urban Indigenous Peoples and Municipalities

It was noted earlier in the module that about 50% of the Indigenous population lives off-reserve and that many of them live in cities. It was also noted that off-reserve Indigenous people are considered to be the responsibility of provinces, not the federal government, and that the *Indian Act* and other federal legislation does not apply.

Urban Indigenous people have not historically received a lot of municipal attention, although that appears to be changing. Municipalities that have high proportions of Indigenous people (Peters as referenced in Alcantara & Nelles, 2016, 8) and municipalities that have strong and proactive Indigenous organizations (Abele as referenced in Alcantara & Nelles, 2016, 8) have paid more attention to this population group.

Even in cities with high numbers of Indigenous peoples, there is very limited Indigenous representation among elected members of municipal councils and often there is no formal way for direct input into municipal decision-making. Municipal policy processes may not include an Indigenous lens or perspective.

Many municipalities have been taking steps to engage with the Indigenous urban communities and to develop processes and practices to ensure their voices are heard in the decision-making process. Unless noted, the examples are summarized from *Reconciliation with Indigenous Peoples: A Holistic Approach* (2019):

- Calgary receives advice from the Aboriginal Urban Affairs Committee and works in partnership with seven First Nations. The city has formally responded to the TRC and has developed an Indigenous Policy Framework to guide its policy and operations.
- Lethbridge has established an Indigenous Sharing Network and created a Reconciliation Implementation Plan 2017–2027 in partnership with two First Nations.
- Vancouver has designated the city as a City of Reconciliation and has adopted a Framework for the City of Reconciliation. The municipality has responded to the TRC and has identified 41 city initiatives for action. Watch [Indigenous Names for Public Plazas](#) [3:27], announcing a new name for the plaza beside the Vancouver Art Gallery.
- Montreal created the office of the Commissioner of Indigenous Affairs (2018) and hosted the First Nations and Municipalities Summit on Reconciliation, which engaged Quebec mayors and First Nations chiefs in important discussions about actions that need to be taken to advance reconciliation.
- Toronto established the Indigenous Affairs Office in 2017 and has an Aboriginal Affairs Advisory Committee.
- Saskatoon initiated a city-wide conversation about reconciliation called Reconciliation Saskatoon in partnership with the Office of the Treaty Commissioner, Saskatoon Tribal Council, Central Urban

Métis Federation Inc., and 54 agencies.

- The Official Community Plan of the City of Victoria, B.C., states “We raise our hands to the Songhees and Esquimalt Nations in whose traditional territories we live and work. Hay sxw qa (Thank you)” (Victoria, 2012, 1).
- The mayor of Sept-Iles, Quebec invited the chief, Elder, and community members from Innu Takuaikan Uashat mak Mani-Utenam to the swearing-in ceremony for the new council. The municipality has had two joint council meetings with the First Nation and has established working committees on reconciliation and infrastructure.
- The County of Antigonish, Nova Scotia, has been working with the Paqtnkek Mi'kmaw Nation and the Eastern-Straight Regional Enterprise Network since 2016 on initiatives that benefit both communities, including renewable energy projects, green energy workshops, economic forums, as well as shared services.
- In August 2020, seven Ontario municipalities signed a Declaration of Mutual Commitment and Friendship with six Indigenous Friendship Centres following a foundational agreement between the Association of Municipalities of Ontario and the Ontario Federation of Indigenous Friendship Centres. The declarations will help build relationships, open communications, and foster collaboration to improve services and supports for Indigenous people in the municipalities. (Taccone, 2020)

Many municipalities have education and awareness programs for city staff about reconciliation, as well as programs that recruit, train, and support Indigenous people to work for the municipality. Toronto and Vancouver have made efforts to increase the representation of Indigenous people on municipal agencies, boards, and commissions.

Many municipalities have established Indigenous advisory committees. Toronto's Aboriginal Affairs Committee was established in 1999 and includes community members and representatives from Indigenous community organizations. Winnipeg's committee is more recent (2013) while Vancouver's committee includes only community members. In addition, many large municipalities have staff specifically assigned to Indigenous relations offices – you read about the Winnipeg Indigenous Relations Division earlier in the module. The goals of both the advisory committees and the Indigenous staff groups is to connect, liaise, consult, and engage with the community.

Advocates argue that while this is a good start, it isn't enough. Municipal processes often rely on nonprofit organizations to represent the Indigenous community, rather than engaging the community directly in governance, and they don't address the underlying questions of Indigenous urban self-governance.

While these nascent entities provide a bridge to Indigenous Peoples to access municipal government, they fall short of providing them with governance models recommended in various consultations with Indigenous Peoples over the past twenty years (Heritz, 2018, 596).

Potential for Urban Indigenous Self-Governance

While there have been many successful land-claims and self-governance treaties negotiated, there have been no formal agreements that recognize the urban Aboriginal right to self-government in an urban

centre (McCaskill et al., 2011, 332).

A 2011 survey of Toronto Indigenous community members and key informants reported that a significant majority (62%) support the idea of urban Indigenous self-government (McCaskill, FitzMaurice, Cidro, 2011, 334). What is urban Indigenous self-governance? The survey respondents and informants suggested it could include an elected council that provided strong leadership and vision and had access to and control of resources to support that vision.

Models of Urban Aboriginal Governance

In 1996, the Royal Commission on Aboriginal Peoples proposed three models for urban Aboriginal governance (Volume 4, Chapter 7).

- **Reform of urban government and public authorities model** – This model calls for greater Aboriginal representation on municipal councils and other decision-making bodies as well as the co-management of programs and services focused on the Aboriginal community. (Royal Commission, 1996, 439–440)
- **Community of interest model** – Aboriginal organizations and service providers would form an integrated Aboriginal public service and would then establish a governing body to represent the Aboriginal community. (Royal Commission, 1996, 441–443)
- **Nation-based model** – This approach maintains ties with urban Aboriginal peoples' nations of origin. For example, the First Nation may extend its jurisdiction to include members living in other communities or establish service agencies to provide services to them in the urban centre. It could establish processes or structures for urban Aboriginal peoples to contribute to the governance of the First Nation. (Royal Commission, 1996, 444–446)

Efforts were made to develop a self-governance process based on the community of interest model in Toronto in 2001. The Aboriginal Council of Toronto was formed with the goal of developing an elected and representative Indigenous governing body in Toronto. It was proposed that the council would have 18 members, either elected or appointed by their respective communities, and every Indigenous person living in the Greater Toronto Area would be considered a citizen and would have a voice. The council was successful in developing a vision and strategic priorities but didn't achieve the goal of establishing Indigenous self-governance in Toronto.

Subsequent consultations and reports identified the need for a stronger Indigenous voice in Toronto. A 2004 report, *All Voices Heard*, identified the need for a "hub" for community representation that would be integrated with an Indigenous public service (McCaskill et al., 2011, 333).

Urban self-government continues to be raised at the municipal level. The 2010 Statement of Commitment to Aboriginal Communities in Toronto includes a commitment to "supporting the Aboriginal right to self-determination by working inclusively with Aboriginal communities in Toronto" (McCaskill et al., 2011, 333).

Pam Palmater argues that more needs to be done. In particular, the municipality needs to develop hubs that could be used to support Indigenous people, businesses, groups, and organizations and share the wealth that has been created on Indigenous territories. “Indigenous governance should be understood not only in terms of self-governance, but also power within current governance structures. Seats on each city council should be designated for local Indigenous governments and urban Indigenous representatives” (Palmater, 2018). Interestingly, the Toronto District School Board has put a model in place that includes two designated student trustee positions and one Indigenous student trustee on the board of trustees (TDSB, n.d.).

Pause and Reflect

What could Indigenous self-government look like in a Canadian city? Which of the three models proposed by the Royal Commission on Aboriginal Peoples would best serve Aboriginal peoples living in Toronto? What are the implications of your preferred model on the municipality?

Interested in learning more about the Toronto initiative? See Chapter 15 – Urban Aboriginal Governance – in [Toronto Aboriginal research project, final report](#) [PDF].

Uncertainty Related to the Duty to Consult

Both the federal and provincial governments have a **duty to consult** and **duty to accommodate**, arising from the *Constitution Act, 1982*, when a decision may have an adverse impact on Aboriginal or treaty rights. The duty to consult implies “the give and take of bargaining” (AMO, 2019, 7) and the related duty to accommodate implies accommodating the rights and interests of Indigenous peoples. But municipalities are not recognized as a level of government in the Constitution and expectations of municipalities regarding these duties is unclear.

A challenge for municipal and Indigenous governments is uncertainty about the municipal role in the Crown’s constitutional Duty to Consult. The Duty to Consult is different than regular provincial or statutory municipal consultation. Instead, it is a specific legal Duty owed by the Crown to rights-bearing Indigenous communities (AMO, 2019, 4).

The province of Ontario’s interpretation of the duty is that municipalities are independent decision makers and that they have a duty to consult (Ministry of Municipal Affairs and Housing, 2009, 1; AMO, 2019, 4). The Ontario Ministry of Municipal Affairs and Housing advised that municipalities have a duty to consult in some circumstances, such as land use planning, infrastructure planning, and changes to municipal boundaries and policies related to cultural protection and development, but the ministry doesn’t explicitly define the circumstances or require the consultation (Ontario, 2009, 1).

The Association of Municipalities disagrees with this interpretation. “Provincial courts and decision-makers in other provinces have clearly ruled against a municipal Duty to Consult. They have argued that it is unreasonable to expect municipal governments as non-Crown corporate entities with limited

authority, capacity and resources to fulfill the constitutional Duty in the same manner as a Crown” (AMO, 2019, 9).

The question remains outstanding about application to municipalities. The Supreme Court ruled (Haida) that “third parties cannot be held liable for failing to discharge the Crown’s duty to consult and accommodate” (AMO, 2019, 9). But it is balanced by another Supreme Court ruling (Clyde River), which suggests that municipalities may be considered regulatory agencies through which the Crown (or province) acts and has the authority to “do what the duty requires in particular circumstances” (AMO, 2019, 9).

The duty to consult may bring an additional challenge for urban municipalities and First Nations. Duty-related consultations can occur more easily between the First Nations, like the Mississaugas of the Credit, that are connected to the municipality by treaty but may be more difficult with the dispersed, and not formally organized, urban Aboriginal peoples living in the municipality.

Moving Toward Multi-level Governance?

Module 6 talked about intergovernmental relationships between municipalities and the federal and provincial/territorial governments. This module has referenced some of the key elements in the evolving relationship between the federal and provincial/territorial governments and First Nations as well as the shifts in the relationships between municipalities and First Nations.

These new relationships offer potential for greater regional cooperation around shared goals and interests, consistent with earlier discussions of new regionalism.

The increase of relationship and decolonization agreements over time, therefore, may be indicative of a sea change in the way in which First Nations and municipal governments/communities relate to one another and may also represent the emergence of new coalitions in the area of regional governance (Nelles & Alcantara, 2011, 329).

In addition, the relationships highlight the importance of multi-level governance and the recognition of municipalities as an important governance partner. Alcantara and Nelles (2014) suggest that multi-level governance may be a better way to understand relationships than either federalism or intergovernmental relations.

The evolving set of relationships has led the Federation of Canadian Municipalities (FCM) to comment that “[l]ocal governments know that tomorrow’s Canada must unfold at a four-cornered table – with federal and provincial/territorial governments, alongside municipalities and Indigenous communities as equal partners” (FCM, 2020).

Having a seat at the table would get around the challenges of not being directly involved in land claims involving municipal land, and it would promote greater understanding and foster enhanced municipal–First Nations relationships. However, as noted earlier in the module, unlike Aboriginal peoples, municipalities are not recognized in the Constitution and, to this point, haven’t been invited to take a seat at the table.

Summary

The Indigenous population is not only growing at a higher rate than the non-Indigenous population of Canada, it is also much younger than the non-Indigenous population and is increasingly urban. Municipalities need to be proactive in developing trust-based, respectful relationships with these original inhabitants of municipal land, neighbours, and community members.

The increasing connections between local governments and Indigenous people may be formal or informal, and short- or long-term. Agreements may focus on service delivery, land, or fundamentals and values for the development of a relationship. As the module has discussed, there are both challenges and opportunities for municipalities in relationships with Indigenous communities. Regardless of the balance of challenges and opportunities, municipalities can't ignore the need for positive working relationships and partnerships.

Key Takeaways

- Three key pieces of legislation affect First Nations governance: the *Constitution Act, 1867*; *Indian Act, 1876*; and the *Constitution Act, 1982*.
- The Truth and Reconciliation Commission made recommendations targeted at municipalities and municipalities as part of “governments.”
- The Royal Commission on Aboriginal Peoples made recommendations about Aboriginal governance, including self-governance and governance models for urban Aboriginal people.
- First Nations governments and municipalities share some commonalities and differences that have implications for current and future relationships.
- Municipalities may be affected by the negotiation of formal land claims and self-governance agreements between a First Nation and the federal government, but they don't have a formal voice at the table or an opportunity to have input on the process.
- Municipal relationships with Indigenous communities are an increasingly important element in municipal intergovernmental relationships. Relationships take place through:
 - Formal municipal–First Nations agreements
 - Urban reserves
 - Other accords, protocols, and policy and program initiatives within the municipal boundaries
- Models of urban Indigenous self-government have been recommended since the 1990s as a path to enable political representation and access to and control over resources.
- The evolving relationship includes some legal uncertainties. The example of duty to consult and duty to accommodate illustrated differing opinions about the applicability to municipalities, and there are questions about how it would take place in urban municipalities.
- The module expanded the discussion of new regionalism and multi-level governance to include Indigenous governments.

Coming Up Next

Next week we will turn our attention to municipal finance and look at budgets, revenues and expenditures, and issues of accountability.

Discussions and Assignments

Week 7 Discussion

Take 10 minutes to explore your municipal website and learn about the relationship(s) the municipality has with the Indigenous community. There may be a statement about reconciliation; policies related to services, human resources, or purchasing, etc.; representation through an advisory committee; staff assigned to Indigenous issues; and/or funding for Indigenous organizations. Perhaps your municipality has a formal agreement with a First Nation or has an urban reserve within the municipal boundaries or adjacent to the municipality.

Briefly share your findings with the class on the discussion board.

- Reflect on the module content and what you learned from your website review. How would you describe the municipal-Indigenous relationship in your municipality?
- Were you surprised by what you found?

Please see the Week 7 discussion topic in your D2L course for further instructions.

Note: You can access the Discussion Forums & Topics from the Communications menu in your D2L course.

Please make sure that your participation in all discussion forums adheres to the Toronto Metropolitan University online etiquette guidelines listed in the Course Outline.

Assignment

- There is no assignment due this week.

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